

Lecture 5: Participation and Representation (FK)

Political Science — Master Notes · by Jakob V. Stangel

Required reading: OD ch. 6 (*Institutions of Participation and Representation*)

Theme of the lecture: Why do some citizens participate while others don't? Why are some interests represented while others aren't? We examine how different institutions — specifically electoral and party systems — shape political participation and representation.

OD Ch. 6 — Institutions of Participation and Representation

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 6.

Chapter résumé

Looks at the three institutions through which democracies channel **participation and representation** — **electoral systems, parties/party systems, and civil society (interest groups)** — and asks which best represent ordinary and marginalised citizens. It opens with *why anyone participates at all* (a collective-action problem), then its analytic core: how **electoral systems** (plurality/SMD · majoritarian · PR · mixed) convert votes into seats and thereby shape the **number of parties (Duverger's Law)**, proportionality, stability, and the representation of women & minorities. It classifies **party systems**, surveys how parties mobilise (programmatic / clientelist / populist) amid a "crisis of party democracy," contrasts **pluralist vs neocorporatist** interest-group systems, and closes on the master **trade-off (Powell): diverse representation ⇔ clear accountability**.

★ The heart of the chapter: institutions decide who participates and whose interests get represented. The **electoral system** is the master lever — **SMD/plurality** squeezes politics toward *two parties + clear accountability but wasted votes*; **PR** opens it to *many parties + proportional, diverse representation but coalition instability* (Duverger's Law). Underneath sits one unavoidable **trade-off (Powell): broad representation ⇔ clear accountability/governability**.

The red thread. Two questions run through the chapter. ① **Why participate (or not)?** — voting is individually "irrational" (a collective-action problem), so *institutions* raise or lower the cost (PR & simple systems → higher turnout). ② **Whose interests get represented?** — the electoral system → party system → interest-group system chain decides. For any case ask: **how do votes become seats · how many parties result · who gets left out (small parties, women, minorities) · and what's traded off (representation vs accountability)?**

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- The electoral-system menu: SMD plurality (FPTP) · majoritarian (two-round / alternative vote) · proportional representation (PR) · mixed/semiproportional.
- Duverger's Law — SMD → two parties; PR → multiparty.
- **Party systems** — dominant-party · two-party · multiparty; **sociological** (cleavages) vs **institutional** (electoral rules) origins.

- **Mobilisation types** — programmatic • patronage/clientelist • populist.
- **Interest groups: pluralism** (many, neutral state — US) vs **neocorporatism** (few peak associations bargain with the state — Germany).
- **The Powell trade-off** — representation/participation $\rightleftharpoons$ accountability/governability.

Section-by-section main points

Lecture frame (FK). The lecture opens by asking *what representation even is* (**Pitkin**), then works through the institutions that produce it — **electoral systems** → **party systems** → **civil society** — and closes with **case studies** (UK, Germany, Japan, Brazil).

| What is representation? — Pitkin's four views

Core: before asking *how* institutions represent, ask *what "representation" means*. **Hanna Pitkin** (*The Concept of Representation*, 1967) distinguishes **four** senses:

- **Formalistic** — the institutional arrangement that **authorises** a representative and holds them **accountable** (elections = the "before" and "after" of representing).
- **Descriptive** — the representative **resembles** the represented (shares gender, ethnicity, class) — "**standing for**" (the case for **quotas** / descriptive representation).
- **Symbolic** — the representative **stands for** the represented symbolically (a leader/flag people identify with).
- **Substantive** — the representative **acts in the interests** of the represented — "**acting for**" (the **delegate** [follow instructions] vs **trustee** [own judgment] debate).
- *Why it matters:* the electoral systems below are really machines for producing one kind of representation or another — **PR** boosts **descriptive** representation (more women/minorities); **SMD** emphasises the **formalistic** local link.

| Why participate? — the collective-action problem

Core: voting is individually "**irrational**" (Downs) — one vote rarely decides anything — so participation is a **collective-action problem** that *institutions* must overcome.

- People vote anyway for **expressive/solidaristic** reasons, charismatic leaders, and to avoid the **emotional cost** of not participating (guilt, exclusion).
- **Institutions shape turnout:** complex systems depress it among the less-educated; **PR/mixed systems raise it** (fewer "wasted votes"); parties & interest groups lower the cost of finding and acting on your interests.

| Electoral systems — *the core of the chapter* ★

Core: the electoral system is the master lever — *on what basis are you represented* (a **district**, a **party/idea**, or a **group**), and *how do votes become seats*?

configurations. *Gerry + salamander* = "gerrymander." It's the visual shorthand for why single-member districts are vulnerable to **manipulated boundaries** — a weakness PR (large multi-member districts) largely avoids.

- **Majoritarian — two-round runoff & the Alternative Vote.** Unlike FPTP, the winner must clear an **absolute majority (50%+1)**, so the count needs a *second step* FPTP doesn't have. Two ways to get there:
 - **Two-round system (TRS / runoff)** — *France*. **Round 1:** win outright if you get 50%+1; if not, the top candidates go to a **second-round runoff** a week or two later (top two — or in France's legislative version, *everyone above 12.5% of registered voters*), and whoever leads the runoff wins. Voters whose first choice is knocked out get to **re-choose** among those left.
 - **Alternative Vote (AV) / ranked-choice / instant-runoff** — *one ballot*, but you **rank** candidates 1-2-3... Count the 1st preferences; if nobody has 50%+1, **eliminate the last-placed candidate and transfer their ballots to each voter's next-ranked choice**; repeat until someone passes 50%. It's a runoff done "instantly" in a single election.
 - *Mini worked example (AV):* three candidates — **A 40% · B 35% · C 25%**, nobody at 50%. Eliminate **C**; C's voters' 2nd choices split (say **+18%→B, +7%→A**). New totals: **A 47% · B 53% → B wins** — even though A *led* the first count. That flip is the whole point: it rewards the **broadly acceptable** candidate over the one with the biggest *minority*.
 - *Effect:* squeezes extremes, rewards second-choice-friendly candidates, wastes fewer votes than FPTP; produces **~two blocs** but more softly than FPTP. (*Case: Maine 2018* — *first US Congress seat decided by AV; Golden won 50.5–49.5 after trailing on the first count.*)
- **PR: strengths** — few wasted votes, **higher turnout**, far **more women & minorities** (lists + quotas), more information/positions, more egalitarian policy (Orellana). *Weaknesses* — no identifiable individual rep, **coalition instability**, small extremist parties gain outsized leverage; **Kedar:** PR voters even vote for *more extreme* parties on purpose, expecting post-election compromise to pull policy back to the middle.
 - **Closed vs open list** — *who decides the order within a party's seats?* Under PR you vote for a **party**, which then fills its won seats from a ranked **list of candidates**. The two variants differ in *who sets that rank*:
 - **Closed list:** the **party** fixes the order in advance; you vote only for the party, and if it wins *n* seats they go to the top *n* names on the party's list. → **more party control, party discipline, and easy use of quotas** (a party can guarantee women high spots), but voters can't pick the *individual*. (*e.g. Israel.*)
 - **Open list:** you vote for the party **and** for a **specific candidate** within it; the candidates' *own* vote totals decide who gets the party's seats. → **more voter choice over individuals**, but it makes candidates compete against their *own* party-mates → **weaker, more personalist parties**. (*e.g. Brazil* — *a big reason its parties are so fragmented and weak.*)
- **Mixed:** two ballots (a district candidate + a party list) — blends a personal rep with proportional fairness; **Germany's compensatory** version tops seats up to full proportionality, **Japan's noncompensatory** version keeps SMD & PR separate (less proportional). **AV/ranked-choice** wastes fewer votes than FPTP (Maine 2018 elected the first US Congress seat by AV).
 - **Is Germany still "mixed"? (2023 reform).** You can argue it's **drifting toward pure PR**. Germany's compensatory mechanism caused the Bundestag to balloon (**736 seats in 2021** via overhang + balance seats). The **2023 reform** (first used in the **2025** election) **capped the house at 630** and **abolished overhang & compensatory seats**: a party now gets **only** the seats its **second (list) vote** earns, and district winners are seated **only if their party's list vote covers them** (*Zweitstimmendeckung*) — otherwise the narrowest district winners **lose their seats** even though they won locally. So the **first vote no longer guarantees a personal representative**, and total seats are set almost entirely by the party

vote → many now call it "**personalised PR**" rather than a genuine mixed system. (*The Constitutional Court upheld the cap in 2024 but reinstated the basic-mandate/3-seat clause.*)

- **Redistribution link (Iversen & Soskice — from Lecture 4):** PR → the middle class allies with the poor → bigger welfare states; majoritarian → middle allies with the rich → less. A key reason electoral systems shape *policy*, not just seats (the Sweden vs US welfare puzzle).

Table 1. Electoral system and the number of years with left and right governments (1945-98)

		Government partisanship		Proportion of right governments
		Left	Right	
Electoral system	Proportional	342 (8)	120 (1)	0.26
	Majoritarian	86 (0)	256 (8)	0.75

Note: Excludes centrist governments (see text below for details).

How to read it (Iversen & Soskice). Count the years each system spent under left vs right government (1945–98). Under **PR**, the right governed only **26%** of the time; under **majoritarian**, the right governed **75%** of the time. Same democracies, opposite tilt — hard evidence that the electoral system biases which side holds power over the long run, and hence how big the welfare state gets.

Duverger's Law — and its limits

Core: SMD/plurality → **two parties** (small parties get squeezed out and voters stop "wasting" votes on them); PR → multiparty.

- **But not deterministic:** it holds in *established* democracies; in **new/diverse** democracies voters aren't strategic (ethnic/identity voting persists), so FPTP can still produce many parties (Moser & Scheiner) — see **India**. And it can break even in old democracies (**France 2017:** Macron's one-year-old party upended a near-two-party system).

Party systems

Core: classify a system by the **number & relative strength** of parties. First, *what parties are for*; then the three types; then where they come from.

- **What parties do — five functions (FK deck):** ① **mobilise** citizens to participate • ② **recruit** the political elite (candidates/leaders) • ③ **simplify** choices (a label voters can reason with) • ④ **organise government** (form and run the executive/legislature) • ⑤ **provide opposition** (a government-in-waiting that scrutinises). (*This is what distinguishes parties from interest groups below — parties seek office; interest groups only seek influence.*)
- **The three types — by number & strength:**
 - **Dominant-party:** many parties compete in more-or-less free & fair elections, but **one wins every election** and governs continuously (**ANC**, South Africa — won all six post-apartheid elections, though its share fell to **57.5% in 2019**). **Key nuance:** the line to an **electoral-authoritarian regime** (ch. 8) is

thin — the test is *how* the party keeps winning: by genuine **popularity** (still a democracy) vs by **manipulating the rules, using state resources, and intimidating rivals** (authoritarian).

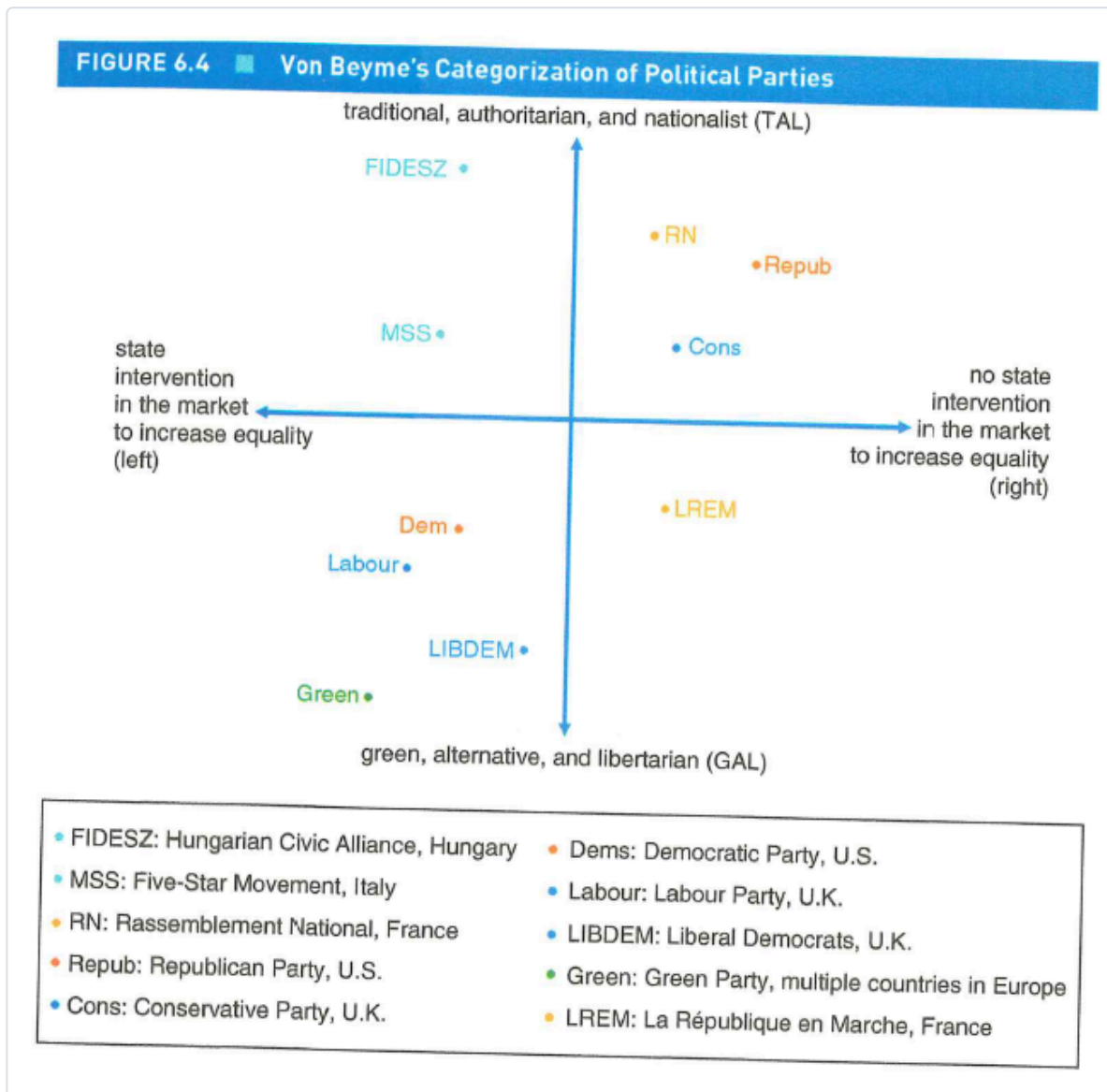
- **Two-party**: only **two** parties can realistically win, though more compete (**US** — no third party significant since the Republicans emerged in the 1850s; **UK**). Third parties (Ross Perot's Reform Party) flare up but **rarely survive more than two elections**.
- **Multiparty**: **more than two** parties could win and govern → **coalitions**. Two sub-variants: **(a)** two large parties, one usually needing small partners to reach a majority (**Italy**); **(b)** three-four roughly equal parties, a majority *always* needing a coalition of ≥ 2 .
- **Where party systems come from — two rival explanations** (the answer to "why do some countries have 2 parties and others 6?"):
 - **Sociological** — parties grow out of social *cleavages*. A party forms to represent a self-conscious social group, so the **number of parties mirrors how many deep social divisions a society has**. Two classic 19th-century European cleavages:
 - **Economic (capital vs labour)** — became **universal** with industrialisation: *every* country got a **business/"liberal" party** and a **workers' party** (socialist/social-democratic). This one cleavage alone yields **two** party families.
 - **Religious** — existed in **some** countries, not all: **Germany** has a Christian party (CDU/CSU) speaking for a Catholic minority in a Protestant country; **France**, almost entirely Catholic, never needed one.
 - **The rule**: each *additional* salient cleavage tends to add a party family → **both economic + religious salient = multiparty; only economic salient = two-party**.
 - **Institutional (Duverger)** — the *electoral rules shape the party count*. Rational politicians build whatever kind of party *wins under the given rules*, so the **system** drives the number, not just society. **Under SMD** you must come **first in a district** to win *anything*, so (i) small/ideological parties get **no seats** and wither, and (ii) voters **stop "wasting" votes** on no-hopers → politics collapses toward **two** broad catch-all parties. **Under PR** (seats $\approx$ vote share) *both* pressures vanish → **multiparty survives**.
- **Bridging the "chicken-and-egg"**: the institutional effect holds in **established** democracies but *not* in **new** ones, where voters aren't strategic (ethnic/identity voting persists, FPTP winners take seats on 20–30%) — Boix; Moser & Scheiner. **France** is the classic Duverger case (its two-round SMD pushed a fragmented system to ~two blocs, 82% of seats by 2012) — until **2017**, when Macron's one-year-old party blew it up.

How parties mobilise — and the "crisis of party democracy"

Core: parties win support in **three distinct ways** — how a party mobilises tells you what *kind* of party it is:

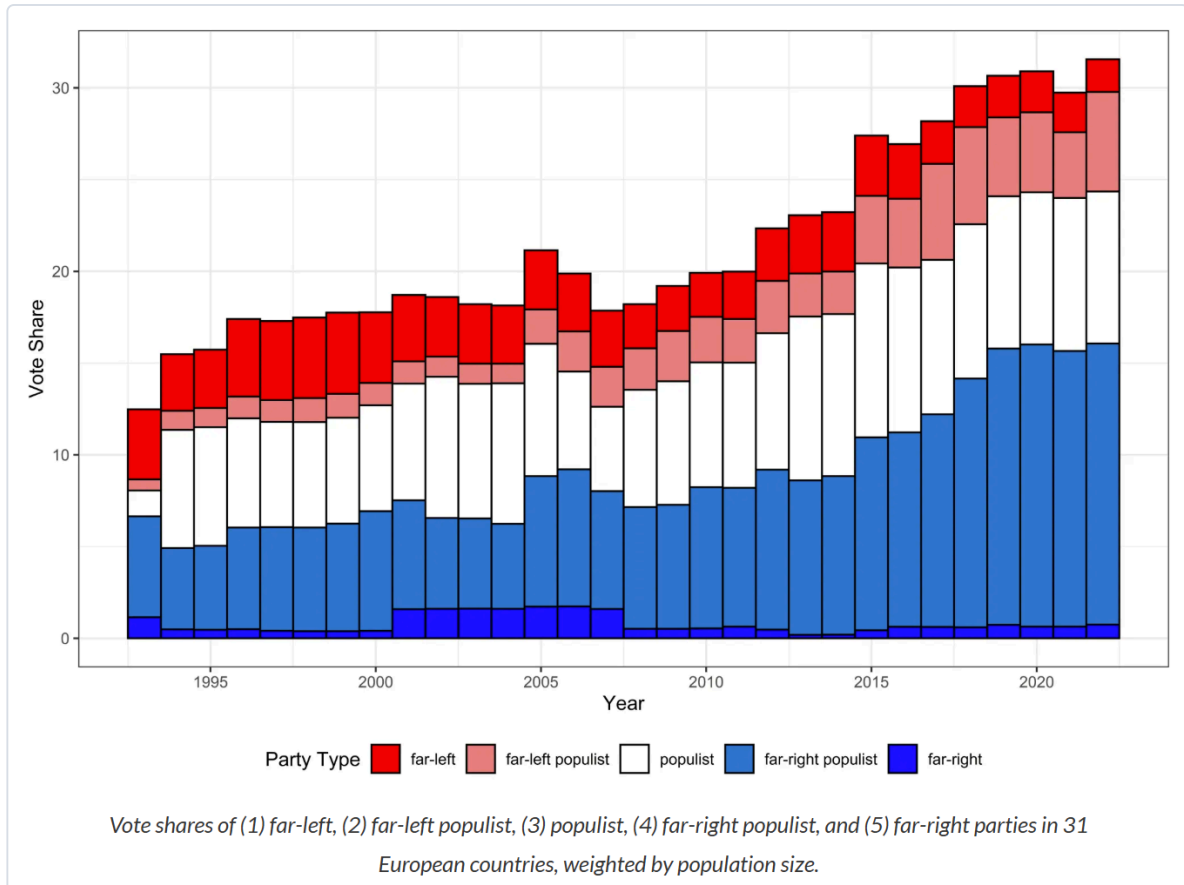
Type	How it wins votes	Signature	Where it thrives
Programmatic	offers ideas / ideology / policy — you vote for its platform	manifestos, left–right positioning	established, richer democracies
Patronage / clientelist	trades material benefits for votes , delivered through local brokers	jobs, cash, favours, "get out the vote" machines	poorer / newer & statist economies
Populist	a personalist leader frames " the people " vs a " corrupt elite "	crisis rhetoric, anti-establishment, deliberate " bad manners "	anywhere in a "crisis of party democracy"

- **Where parties sit — two ideology axes (FK):** parties map onto **two** dimensions, not one — the classic economic **Left–Right** (redistribution: *state intervention to increase equality* $\rightleftharpoons$ *no intervention*) *plus* the modern cultural **GAL–TAN** — **GAL** (Green/Alternative/Libertarian: progressive, cosmopolitan, pro-environment, individual rights) vs **TAN/TAL** (Traditional/Authoritarian/Nationalist). Today's populist/far-right parties (Farage, Salvini, AfD) mobilise mainly on the **TAN** end of this *second* axis.



How to read it (Von Beyme, OD Fig. 6.4). The **horizontal axis** = **economics** (left = *state intervention to increase equality*; right = *no intervention*); the **vertical axis** = **culture/values** (bottom = **GAL**; top = **TAL/TAN**). A party's position is the *pair* of coordinates — e.g. **Labour/Dems** sit centre-left & GAL-ish, **RN (Rassemblement National)** & **FIDESZ** sit right & strongly **TAL**, **Greens** sit far **GAL**. The point: two parties can share an economic position yet be opposites on culture — which is exactly how the far-right mobilises on the **TAN** axis without moving economically.

- **Caveat on "programmatic":** **Achen & Bartels** ("folk theory" critique) argue voters mostly vote by **social identity**, not by carefully weighing ideas — so pure programmatic appeal is partly a myth.
- **Crisis of party democracy:** only ~20% trust parties (though ~80% value democracy); falling loyalty/membership/turnout, rising **electoral volatility**, single-issue/postmaterialist voting, and **far-right/anti-system** parties (nativism, post-2015 refugee crisis). Explanations: economic (globalisation, manufacturing decline); **dealignment** (voters detach from all parties) vs **realignment** (they switch); catch-all parties → "**cartel parties**" (Mair) colluding at the centre → lost efficacy.



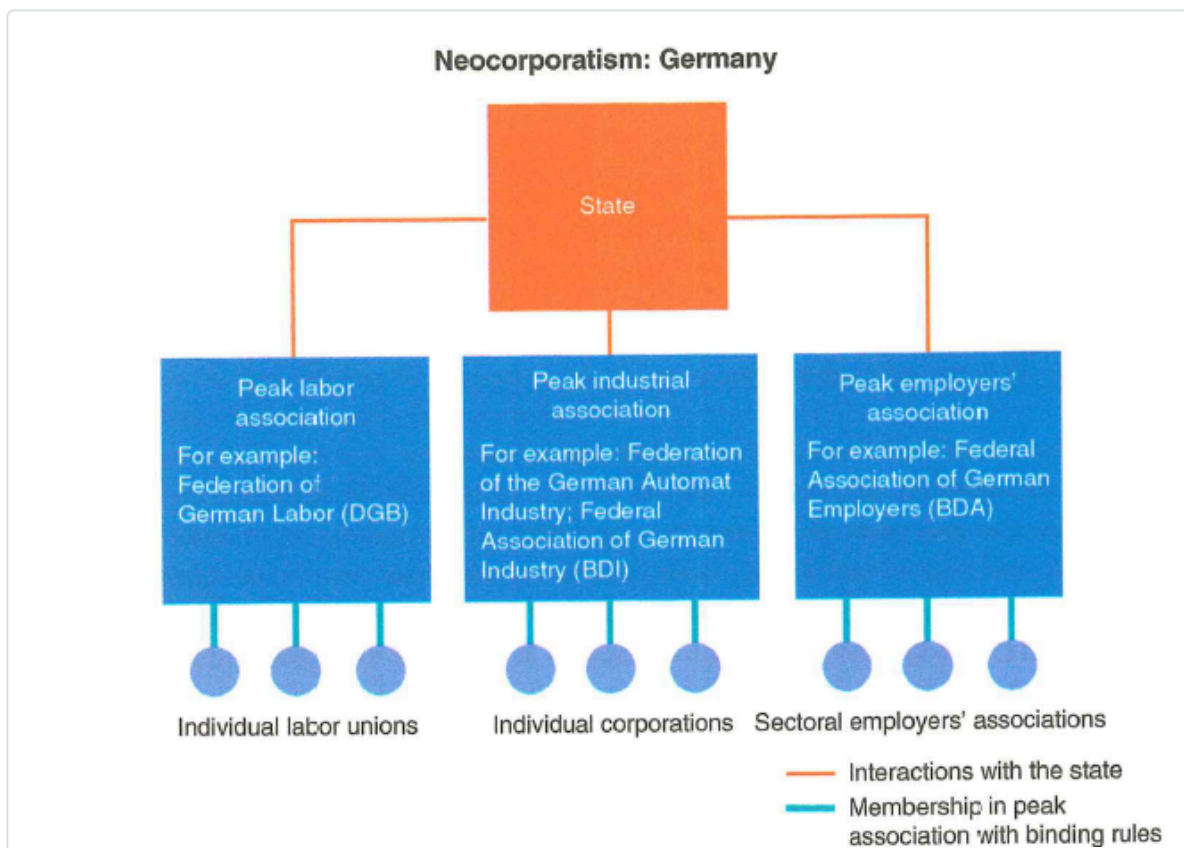
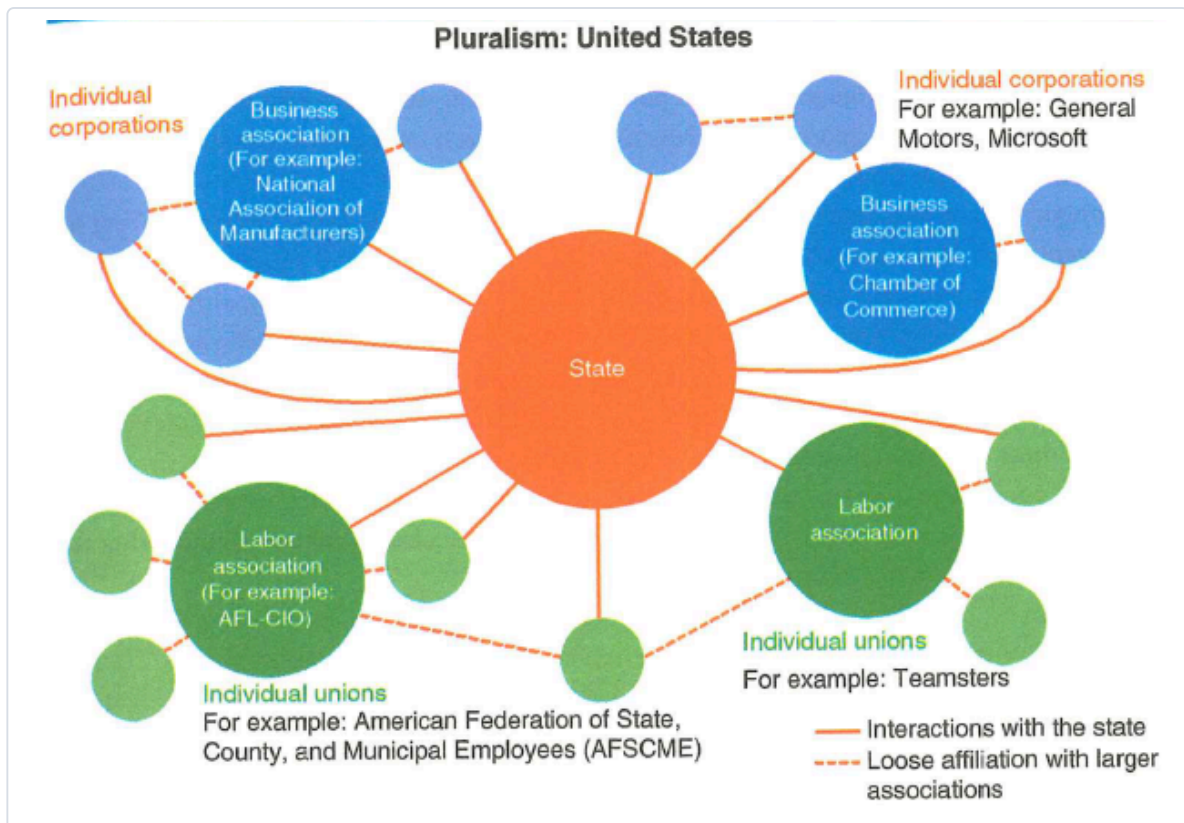
How to read it (The PopuList, Rooduijn et al. 2024). Each bar = one year's **combined vote share** of anti-establishment parties across 31 European countries; the colours split them into far-left, far-left-populist, populist, **far-right-populist (blue)** and far-right. The story is the **near-doubling** from ~12% (1993) to ~31% (2022), and that most of the growth is the **blue far-right-populist band** — the empirical face of the "crisis of party democracy."

- **US exception:** not dealignment but partisan **sorting/polarisation** (Abramowitz), racial realignment, and Trump's **status-threat** populism (Mutz 2018).

Civil society & interest groups — pluralism vs neocorporatism

Core: beyond parties, organised **interest groups** (they *don't* seek office, unlike parties) represent society — in two rival models. Groups grew sector-by-sector: first **labour, business, agriculture**, then **women/minority** groups; in divided societies, ethnic/religious groups dominate (some, like the KKK, are internally *undemocratic* — a tension for democracy).

- **Pluralism (US):** **many** competing groups, a **neutral** state; easy entry & local control, but fragmented clout — and **business is inherently privileged** (Lindblom). **Schattschneider's** famous jab: "*the flaw in the pluralist heaven is that the heavenly chorus sings with a strong upper-class accent*" — i.e. who gets organised is skewed toward the well-off.
- **Neocorporatism** / societal corporatism (Germany, N. Europe): a **few large, hierarchical peak associations** the state recognises as *the* voice of each sector negotiate **binding** deals; more influence (esp. for labour countering business) but **less participatory** (little incentive to form new groups). (*State corporatism = the mandated, authoritarian version — ch. 8.*)
- **Social-capital debate:** Putnam (*Bowling Alone*) sees civic **decline**; Skocpol adds that mass-membership bodies gave way to **managed advocacy**; critics (Dalton, "**Kicking in Groups**") reply that activity just **moved to new forms** (movements, single-issue groups).



How to read them (OD). *Pluralism (US, first diagram):* many groups orbit a **neutral** state, connected by thin/loose lines — lots of competing voices, easy entry, but **fragmented** clout and no single channel.

Neocorporatism (Germany, second): the state is formally wired to just a **few large peak associations** (peak labour DGB, peak industry BDI, peak employers BDA), each sitting *above* its own member firms/unions — fewer, **binding** channels → more influence (esp. for labour) but **harder for new groups** to break in. Same job (representing interests), opposite architecture: *many-and-loose* vs *few-and-binding*.

The master trade-off (Powell)

Core: systems open to **diversity** (PR · multiparty · pluralism) maximise **representation & participation** but blur **accountability & governability**; **majoritarian** systems (FPTP · two-party) do the reverse. *There is no free lunch — every design chooses a point on this line.* The chapter's most robust finding: **PR represents women far better than SMD** (India goes further with **reserved seats**).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — **circle them back**. Each shows **one electoral/party system in action** and *who it represents vs leaves out*. Read each for: *which system · how votes became seats · who got left out*.

Case	Electoral system	Party system	What it shows
<u>UK</u>	SMD/FPTP	two-party	extreme disproportionality (UKIP 12.6% → 1 seat)
<u>Germany</u>	mixed compensatory PR	multiparty	how mixed PR lets new parties (Greens, AfD) in
<u>Japan</u>	mixed noncompensatory	dominant (LDP)	more majoritarian; Duverger working haltingly
<u>India</u>	SMD/FPTP + federal	multiparty	Duverger's limits in a diverse democracy; reserved seats
<u>Brazil</u>	open-list PR (no threshold)	fragmented	weak-party fragmentation (30 parties) + populism
<u>Israel</u>	pure closed-list PR	hyper-multiparty	PR instability under extreme diversity

- **UK — SMD/FPTP.** The paradigm two-party FPTP system: modest vote margins → big seat majorities → single-party government. But it's wildly **disproportional** — in **2015, UKIP won 12.6% of the vote → 1 seat**, while the **SNP won fewer votes → 56 seats** (geographically concentrated in Scotland). → *SMD/FPTP → disproportionality, wasted votes, majoritarian governance.*
- **Germany — mixed compensatory PR.** Designed after Weimar with a **5% threshold** + compensatory mixed PR → a stable multiparty system. The **Greens (1983)** got in *because* the semiproportional system let them clear the threshold (unlike Britain's Greens); by **2017** the two big parties fell to a record **54%**, and the far-right **AfD** won its first seats. **Note (2023 reform):** to stop the house ballooning (736 seats in 2021), Germany **capped it at 630** and **scrapped overhang/compensatory seats** — seats now follow the **list vote** and a district win no longer guarantees a seat, so it's arguably become **personalised PR** rather than truly "mixed." → *Mixed PR sustains a multiparty system and lets new/ideological parties gain representation — though the 2023 reform pushes it toward pure PR.*
- **Japan — mixed noncompensatory.** The **LDP dominated 1955–93** via factions & clientelism; the **1994 reform** (300 SMD + 180 PR, *noncompensatory*) pushed toward two parties — the **DPJ won 308/480 in 2009**, but the **LDP swept back in 2012** ("lucky, not popular" — a split opposition). → *Noncompensatory mixed = more majoritarian than Germany; Duverger's Law working haltingly.*
- **India — FPTP in a diverse federation.** FPTP "should" give two parties, but **huge diversity + federalism** yields many *state-level* two-party fights that aggregate into a **national multiparty** system (parties: 50 in 1952 → 342 in 2009). **BJP (Modi) 2014: 31% of the vote → 52% of seats** under FPTP. **120 of ~600 seats are reserved** for lower castes/tribes. → *Duverger's limits in a new/diverse democracy; reserved-seat representation.*
- **Brazil — open-list PR, no threshold.** No incentive for intra-party cooperation → extreme fragmentation (**30 parties by 2018**) and weak, local parties (a third of legislators switched parties 1989–95). Recession + the "car wash" scandal → mass protests → **Rousseff impeached (2016)** → outsider populist **Bolsonaro won 2018** atop a tiny party. → *Open-list PR's weak-party fragmentation + accountability failure + populism.*

- **Israel — pure PR.** The whole country is **one district**, a 120-seat Knesset, **3.25% threshold** → ~a dozen parties win; governments = a big party + 3–6 small ones, lasting ~2 years; **2019 produced three elections in one year.** → *PR's instability under extreme diversity — the cost of maximal proportionality.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Collective-action problem	Individuals rationally don't act (vote) though all suffer if none do
Electoral system	Legal mechanism translating votes into offices/seats
Single-member district (SMD)	Each district elects one representative
Plurality / FPTP	Most votes wins (no majority needed)
<u>Majoritarian</u>	Winner needs an absolute majority (50%+1)
<u>Two-round system (runoff)</u>	If no 50%+1 in round 1, top candidates meet in a second-round runoff (France)
<u>Alternative Vote (AV) / ranked-choice</u>	Rank candidates; eliminate last-placed & transfer their votes until one passes 50%
Proportional representation (PR)	Seats = vote share (national/large districts + a threshold)
<u>Closed-list PR</u>	Vote for a party; the party sets the candidate order (party control, quotas) — Israel
<u>Open-list PR</u>	Vote for party and a candidate; candidates' own votes set the order (voter choice, weaker parties) — Brazil
Mixed / semiproportional	SMD seats + party-list PR (compensatory / noncompensatory)
Duverger's Law	SMD → two parties; PR → multiparty
Party system	Number & strength of parties (dominant / two-party / multiparty)
Programmatic / patronage / populist mobilisation	Win support by ideas / material rewards / anti-elite personalism
Interest-group pluralism	Many competing groups, neutral state (US)
Neocorporatism	Few peak associations bargain binding deals with the state (Germany)
Peak association	Body uniting a whole sector to negotiate with the state
Social capital	Networks + norms of reciprocity underpinning civil society
Powell trade-off	Diverse representation ⇔ clear accountability

Exam pointers

- Reproduce the electoral-systems comparison cold — how each converts votes→seats, its effect on the **number of parties (Duverger)**, **proportionality**, **turnout**, and **women/minorities** — with a case each.
- Answer both spine questions: **why participate** (collective-action problem; institutions shape turnout) and **whose interests get represented** (electoral → party → interest-group chain).

- State Duverger's Law and its limits (India; France 2017).
- Contrast pluralism vs neocorporatism (US vs Germany) for interest representation.
- Land on the Powell trade-off (representation $\rightleftharpoons$ accountability) and the robust finding that **PR represents women better**; use Iversen & Soskice to link PR $\rightarrow$ more redistribution.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 5 (participation & representation).

Quotable

- Schattschneider (1942): "*Modern democracy is unthinkable save in terms of parties.*"
- Downs (1957): for most people, voting is technically **irrational** — the seed of the collective-action problem.
- Powell's master **trade-off**: representation/participation $\rightleftharpoons$ accountability/governability.

Striking numbers

- **UK 2015**: UKIP won **12.6%** $\rightarrow$ **1 seat**; the SNP won *fewer* votes $\rightarrow$ **56 seats**.
- **US 2012 House**: in the ten most gerrymandered states, Republicans won **7% more votes but 76% more seats**.
- **Israel**: whole country = one district; **3.25% threshold**; **three elections in one year (2019)**; governments last $\sim$ 2 years.
- **India**: parties grew **50 (1952) $\rightarrow$ 342 (2009)**; **120 of $\sim$ 600** seats reserved for lower castes/tribes; BJP 2014 = **31% of vote $\rightarrow$ 52% of seats**.
- **Brazil 2018**: its most fragmented legislature ever — **30 parties**.
- **Women in legislatures**: Nordic countries lead at **42.5%**; US House only **23.4%** (2019). Robust finding: **PR elects more women than SMD**.
- Only $\sim$ **20%** of citizens trust parties, though $\sim$ **80%** call democracy "a very good thing."
- **Maine 2018**: first US Congress seat decided by **ranked-choice** — Golden won 50.5–49.5 after trailing on the first count.

Memorable

- **France**: the top two parties held **56% of Assembly seats (1973) $\rightarrow$ 82% (2012)** — then the system **collapsed in 2017** with Macron's one-year-old party.
 - **$\sim$ 60 countries** used FPTP in 2019 — almost all former British colonies; **Belarus** was the only continental-European one.
 - The social-capital debate in two titles: Putnam's *Bowling Alone* vs its rebuttal "**Kicking in Groups**."
-